AI for education

The Adoption of Artificial Intelligence in Higher Education: Insights from the Students at Stockholm University

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Abstract

This paper discusses the drivers of artificial intelligence (AI) adoption among students at Stockholm University with particular attention to four determinants, namely, performance expectancy, perceived ease of use, perceived risk, and perceived organisational support. The study is based on the Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology (UTAUT) and supplemented by the constructs of the Technology Acceptance Model and organisational support theory, thus having a positivist, deductive and quantitative research design. A structured online questionnaire was employed to collect data of 204 undergraduate and postgraduate students and a multiple linear regression was used to analyze the data. The model accounted 62.5% of the variance in adoption of AI and it was found to be statistically significant ($F = 82.998$, $p < 0.001$). Findings affirmed that performance expectancy (Beta = 0.463, $p < 0.001$) and perceived ease of use (Beta = 0.394, $p < 0.001$), have a positive and significant effect on AI adoption, and perceived risk (Beta = -0.119, $p = 0.015$) has a negative significant effect. There was no statistically significant effect of perceived organisational support ($p = 0.708$). These results emphasize the perceived academic utility and usability as the most influential factors in student adoption of AI, and the risk perceptions as the inhibitory factor when there is no explicit institutional direction. The research fills the gap in the existing literature regarding the adoption of AI in the Swedish higher education setting and provides evidence-based insights into how university administrators and policymakers can encourage responsible and effective AI adoption.

Keywords: The adoption of artificial intelligence, higher education, performance expectancy, perceived ease of use, perceived risk, perceived organisational support, UTAUT, Stockholm University.

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Abbreviations

Abbreviation	Description
AI	Artificial Intelligence
TAM	Technology Acceptance Model
UTAUT	Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology
SPSS	Statistical Package for the Social Sciences
VIF	Variance Inflation Factor
KMO	Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin (measure of sampling adequacy)
ANOVA	Analysis of Variance
GDPR	General Data Protection Regulation
PE	Performance Expectancy
PEOU	Perceived Ease of Use
PR	Perceived Risk
POS	Perceived Organisational Support
SU	Stockholm University

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1. Introduction

1.1 Background of the Study

The intense development of artificial intelligence (AI) technologies has fundamentally altered many areas of society, with the sphere of higher education being the most undergone, as the proletariat will receive access to generative forms of AI technology, referred to as ChatGPT, in late 2022 (Cabrera & Neville, 2025). These technologies involve conversational agents, writing assistants, and customized learning platforms and have been integrated to unprecedented extents in students' academic experiences, providing students with greater opportunities to improve learning, research, and administrative processes (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025). The ubiquitous nature of these tools may imply a dramatic change in the educational process because students will increasingly integrate AI into their processes (Aldreabi et al., 2025).

AI integration in higher education offers a two-sided future of a huge opportunity and a huge problem. On the one hand, AI-based applications can be used to create individualized learning experiences, offer instant feedback, assist in writing development, and allow adaptive systems to engage students with complex information (Aldreabi et al., 2025; Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025). Conversely, teachers and schools are confronted with the issue of academic integrity, data privacy and the credibility of the materials produced by AI, as well as the possible decline of critical thinking capabilities (Cabrera & Neville, 2025). This contradiction is best summed up by what researchers have labeled the AI paradox: these tools are popularized but are hardly trusted by the same students who rely on them (Cabrera and Neville, 2025, p. 3).

The attitudes of students towards the use of AI are rather complex. Studies have shown that even though learners like the usefulness of AI and its accessibility, less than a quarter of them consider its output to be entirely reliable (Cabrera & Neville, 2025). Further, students state that they feel anxious, confused, and distrustful about AI implementation, especially when institutional policies are unclear or unenforced (Silva, 2025). According to research among 95 students in five university campuses, the ambiguity over permissible use of AI contributed to emotional distance both between learners and teachers and towards peers with concerns about possible excessive use of AI resources (Silva, 2025).

1.2 Problem Statement

Although the use of AI tools in the context of higher education students has become incredibly widespread, there is still a substantial gap in the knowledge about the aspects that facilitate or hinder their successful implementation in the academic setting. Although technological acceptance has also been widely examined in the field of information systems, the specifics of the educational setting, such as the goals of the pedagogical process, ethical implications, and organizational processes require context-specific examination (Aldreabi et al., 2025; Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025).

One of the most alarming issues that have arisen as a result of recent scholarship is the lack of association between student use of AI and institutional readiness to facilitate its responsible use. The results of a worldwide survey by UNESCO indicated that nine out of ten users use AI tools at work, and only 19% of institutions of higher learning have officially adopted AI policies, with 42% more institutions creating guidelines (UNESCO, 2025). This policy vacuum is forcing students to navigate through AI adoption without a clear set of guidelines, which adds to uneven practices and ethical ambiguities. Moreover, the survey demonstrated that it is necessary to develop clear frameworks and institutional capacity to guarantee ethical AI utilization because more than half of the participants were unsure about its successful use and that one in four institutions already experienced ethical concerns (UNESCO, 2025). The general overview of institutional practices (224 colleges and universities) also confirms that AI usage is increasing, yet the formal governance and pedagogical recommendations are not well-developed (Sebesta, 2025).

There are numerous determinants of AI adoption in higher education that have been found through existing research. Performance expectancy, how much students assume AI will improve their grades in the future constantly comes up as a strong predictor of intention to use (Aldreabi et al., 2025). The ease of use determines the level of success of AI tools in adoption by students or the inaccessibility (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025). Perceived risk comprises worrying about violating academic integrity, privacy breach, and the possibility of AI to dismantle genuine learning (Cabrera & Neville, 2025). Lastly, the environment under which the process of adoption takes place is embedded in organisational perceived support through institutional training, resource provision, and the provision of clear policies (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025).

These factors have however seldom been analyzed as one in one and the same theoretical framework to be applied on the Swedish higher education context. Stockholm University as one of the most significant research institutions with a wide range of disciplinary traditions offers a significant background to explore the perception and reaction of students to AI technologies. A deeper insight into how these determinants affect student adoption is important to establish evidence-based institutional policies that optimize the educational value of AI and reduce its risks.

1.3 Research Objectives

This study pursues the following objectives:

1. To investigate the impact of perceived organisational support, perceived ease of use, perceived risk, and performance expectancy on the adoption of artificial intelligence among students at Stockholm University.
2. To provide evidence-based recommendations for institutional policies and practices that support responsible and effective AI integration in higher education.

1.4 Research Questions

Guided by the research objectives, this study addresses two primary questions:

1. How do perceived organisational support, perceived ease of use, perceived risk, and performance expectancy influence the adoption of artificial intelligence among students at Stockholm University?
2. What are the implications of these influences for developing institutional frameworks that promote responsible AI integration in higher education?

1.5 Significance of the Study

This study adds to the existing literature on the concept of AI acceptance in higher education by applying the Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology (UTAUT) to the specific constructs that are specifically representative of the educational setting. The study, through the analysis of students at Stockholm University, offers a perspective on the Swedish higher education context, which complements the available literature related to this research topic, conducted largely in North American, British, and other Middle Eastern contexts (Aldreabi et al., 2025; Cabrera & Neville, 2025; Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025).

In practice, the results will inform university administrators, faculty, and policymakers on the factors which have the most significant impact on student engagement with AI tools. With the shift to strategic incorporation of AI by institutions all over the world (Sebesta, 2025), the insights into the student opinions will be vital to developing training programmes, ethics, and pedagogical strategies that will appeal to the needs and concerns of learners. The focus on perceived organisational support is specifically timely, as the UNESCO findings reveal that the organisational guidance on AI is quickly growing, yet distributed unevenly across geographical areas and the types of institutions, as well as that a significant amount of institutions is actively exploring the use of AI in teaching and learning (UNESCO, 2025).

1.6 Scope and Delimitations

This paper is limited to students studying at Stockholm University both undergraduate and postgraduate students in different faculties and disciplines. The study is cross-sectional and will include student perceptions about something at a certain point in time during the 2025-2026 school year. The four given constructs perceived organisational support, perceived ease of use, perceived risk, and performance expectancy and their association with AI adoption are investigated. Social influence, habit or hedonic motivation, are other possible determinants, which are outside the scope of this study.

2. Extended Background

2.1 Introduction

The chapter provides the theoretical basis of the study of the implementation of artificial intelligence among students attending Stockholm University. The fast adoption of generative AI applications, including ChatGPT, Copilot, and Gemini, in universities is fundamentally altering the learning environment, and may require a solid grasp of what influences acceptance and adoption of these tools by students (Cabrera & Neville, 2025; Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025). The review summarizes the literature on technology acceptance models with a specific focus on the Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology (UTAUT) and its derivatives and incorporates the constructs that are applicable to the educational environment. The chapter continues by evaluating the theoretical background of the research, analyzing empirical data on each major construct and creating the conceptual model that will be used in this study.

2.2 Theoretical Bases of Technology Acceptance.

2.2.1. The Development of Technology Acceptance Models.

Technology acceptance research has undergone significant changes throughout the last thirty years, starting with the Technology Acceptance Model (TAM) that was developed by Davis (1989), which assumed that perceived usefulness and perceived ease of use are the main factors that determine the behavioural intentions of users (Davis, 1989). TAM was based on psychological theories, especially Theory of Reasoned Action, and offered sparse but useful model of interpreting the adoption of technology in organisational contexts (Davis, 1989). Other extensions, like TAM2 and TAM3, added more variables like social influence, cognitive instrumental processes, and individual differences to increase the explanatory power (Xiao et al., 2025).

The Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology (UTAUT), a synthesis of eight popular technology acceptance models, is a framework of four core determinants, performance expectancy, effort expectancy, social influence and facilitating conditions (Venkatesh et al., 2003). UTAUT2 then applied the model to consumer environments, including hedonic motivation, price value and habit (Venkatesh et al., 2012). However, more recently UTAUT3 has added personal innovativeness as another determinant because the technological environment is dynamic (Sergeeva et al., 2025).

2.2.2 Educational Instructional Applicability.

Technology acceptance models when applied to the field of higher education must be done with keen attention to the distinctiveness of learning setting. Students have a great level of autonomy in their choices to use AI tools unlike in the workplace where technology adoption is frequently forced (Aldreabi et al., 2025). Moreover, learning environments entail intricate psychosocial influences such as the value of learning, the issue of academic honesty, and the maturity of student abilities (Cabrera & Neville, 2025). Modern academia has thus recommended the expansion of existing constructs with those that are specifically applicable in educational contexts (Bayaga, 2025).

One of the studies that analyse AI-enhanced pedagogical practices concluded that UTAUT constructs play a significant role in behavioural intention to use AI among educators and students, but the associations are mediated by attitude towards AI (Bayaga, 2025). The performance expectancy and effort expectancy proved to be especially powerful, whereas social influence did not influence outcomes significantly, which may indicate that the choice of adopting educational elements is made mainly by individual perceptions and not peer influence (Sergeeva et al., 2025).

2.3 Performance Expectancy

The concept of performance expectancy, which refers to the extent to which one believes that the utilization of a technology will positively influence his or her academic performance, is always the most predictive of behavioural intention in studies of technology acceptance (Venkatesh et al., 2003). This construct can be used in education to determine how students perceive the usefulness of AI in enhancing learning, productivity and academic activities (Aldreabi et al., 2025).

The role of performance expectancy on AI adoption has solid empirical support. In a study of 257 French management students, performance expectancy was the most important factor to predict intention to use generative AI tools (accounting extensive variance in adoption behaviour) (Bouebdallah, & Youssef, 2025). In the same vein, a study with Russian university students found performance expectancy as the second most predictive variable after habit, which proves to be significant regardless of the cultural setting (Sergeeva et al., 2025). Students seem to be positively oriented towards AI in response to the perceived usefulness of the tool in conducting activities like content generation, research assistance, and personalized learning (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025).

The connection between the performance expectancy and actual utilization, however, might be more complicated than theorized before. An analysis of 115 participants revealed that increased behavioural intention was not always associated with increased AI usage, which indicated that there were external inhibitors or modulating factors that obstructed the intention-behaviour relationship (Bouebdallah, & Youssef, 2025). This observation implies the need to explore other variables that could either enable or hinder the reflection of performance perceptions into actual adoption.

2.4 Perceived Ease of Use

Perceived ease of use, which is a product of TAM and is analogous to effort expectancy in UTAUT, is the extent to which an individual thinks the use of a specific technology would be effortless (Davis, 1989). When applied to AI adoption, this construct will include how students perceive AI tools as being easy to use, being assistive and having low levels of technical skills to use successfully (Rohana et al., 2025).

The literature of cohesive studies has shown that the perceived ease of use has both direct and indirect impact on the adoption intentions. The extensive research of 487 university educators in China demonstrated the strong influence of perceived ease of use on behavioural intention and a significant contribution to perceived usefulness, demonstrating that available tools are also seen as more useful (Zuo et al., 2025). A study of the acceptance of ChatGPT among students demonstrated that perceived ease of use had a significant impact on perceived usefulness, but not always on behavioural intention (Rohana et al., 2025). This trend indicates that ease of use might be predominantly working on usefulness perceptions especially where the tools are relatively new and the user is building on competencies.

Specific attention should be paid to the role of self-efficacy in determining perceptions of ease of use. Studies based on TAM3 have shown that self-efficacy is a powerful predictor of the perceived ease of use because students who have confidence in their ability to use technology successfully perceive AI tools as easy to use (Xiao et al., 2025). On the other hand, fear of AI technologies has a negative effect on ease of use perceptions and puts barriers to adoption that institutions could overcome with training and assistance (Xiao et al., 2025).

2.5 Perceived Risk

Perceived risk is a collection of concerns that the students have towards the adverse effects of adopting AI, such as academic integrity, data privacy, excessive reliance on AI, and the generation of unreliable or biased information (Cabrera & Neville, 2025). With the introduction

of generative AI into higher education, the discussed concerns have become central in both academic and institutional policy discourses.

The qualitative studies on the views of educators have reported that there are major concerns regarding the threat of privacy, academic dishonesty, and the legitimacy of AI-prompted data (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025). In a survey of teachers in Czech and Iraqi universities, researchers stated that they feared data abuse, unauthorized data access, and that AI might help in plagiarism at the expense of critical thinking abilities (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025). Despite the fact that this study concentrated on the educators, the problems that were identified are directly applicable to the student population, who too have to face the same ethical and practical issues.

Perceived risk among students has been reported to have an undesired negative effect on behavioural intention to use AI tools (Aldreabi et al., 2025). According to a study of Chinese university teachers, perceived risk was alleviated by perceived ease of use, which indicates that available tools can decrease the perceived risk by making users feel in control and sufficiently competent (Zuo et al., 2025). Students are especially worried about the reliability and accuracy of AI-generated information, as less than a quarter of students consider AI outputs to be completely reliable (Cabrera and Neville, 2025). Risks perceptions are also negatively affected by the fear of over-automation and loss of student agency since students struggle to define the right limits of human-AI cooperation (Cabrera, 2025).

The idea of trust comes out as a very important counter to perceived risk. A study that UTAUT3 was extended with trust variables concluded that trust was a significant predictor of intentions to use generative AI, which was no longer explained by performance expectancy alone (Sergeeva et al., 2025). Trust comprises faith in the reliability of AI, the belief in the existence of institutional protections, and the assurance that the use of AI will not damage the academic status or personal information.

2.6 Perceived Organisational Support.

Perceived organisational support means the perception of students that their university can supply sufficient resources, training, guidance, and infrastructure necessary to use AI successfully (Jeilani & Abubakar, 2025). Based on the organisational support theory, this construct acknowledges the fact that technology acceptance is realised through institutional environments that are pivotal to alleviating barriers, increasing competencies and legitimising proper use.

The studies conducted recently have confirmed that perceived institutional support is a strong predictor of engagement with AI-based learning as a student. Out of 204 students, a higher education researcher was able to conclude that institutional perceived support had a significant influence on student perception on AI-supported learning with technology self-efficacy mediating this relationship (Jeilani & Abubakar, 2025). Strongly supportive institutions create a conducive environment where students feel empowered and can use AI technologies effectively and can help students overcome the barrier of inadequate knowledge or fear by using AI technologies (Jeilani & Abubakar, 2025).

The UNESCO global survey pointed to a high degree of institutional readiness, with just 19% of institutions of higher education having formal AI policies and almost a third of institutions not providing any AI-related education to students (UNESCO, 2025). Lack of this policy means that students are left to cope with AI adoption without any clear frameworks, which may further stack the risk perception and prevent successful utilization. Studies have shown that with proper training and technical support in institutions, students are more likely to be more accepting and use AI technologies in more advanced ways (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025).

There is also an organisational support that moderates the linkage between individual perceptions and adoption intentions. An investigation of university educators revealed that organisational support increased the influence of perceived ease of use on the behavioural intention, which indicates that institutional support supplements the conversion of positive individual perceptions into real adoption (Zuo et al., 2025). To students, it means that even those who are not challenged with AI tools can have institutional validation and systematic support.

2.7 Artificial Intelligence Embracement.

The dependent variable of this study, which is adoption of artificial intelligence, includes behavioural intention to use AI tools and actual behaviour of usage. Although behavioural intention has been the main scope of technology acceptance studies, recent research indicates that the analysis of actual usage is necessary as the intention-behaviour correlation is not always direct (Bouebdallah, & Youssef, 2025).

Adoption is expressed in a variety of academic tasks such as writing support, research support, content summarization, coding support, and personalized learning (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025). In a survey of graduate computer science students, the preferences of automation were mapped on twelve academic tasks, with students indicating that they would strongly like to have the

task automated when it is repetitive, time-consuming, or accuracy-oriented but hesitant to delegate the task to higher-order reasoning or creative or technical sensitivity (Tbaishat & Elfadel, 2025). This subtle trend indicates that the adoption is not a homogeneous process but is significantly different in different task contexts.

Adoption of AI needs to be carefully operationalized to measure it. The frequency and types of AI use along with students intentions to further use AI tools in their academic tasks are measured by means of validated instruments (Aldreabi et al., 2025; Bouebdallah, & Youssef, 2025). The current research takes a multidimensional approach to reflect the complexity of adoption behaviour and ensure that it fits well with the known technology acceptance research.

2.8 Conceptual Framework and Hypotheses.

Based on theoretical background and empirical data discussed above, the current paper suggests a conceptual model where four independent variables of performance expectancy, perceived ease of use, perceived risk, and perceived organisational support affect the adoption of artificial intelligence among students. The framework expands the UTAUT with perceived risk based on the literature on innovation diffusion and perceived organisational support based on organisational theory to develop a model that is specifically relevant to higher education settings.

Based on the reviewed literature, the following hypotheses guide this investigation:

H1: Performance expectancy positively influences the adoption of artificial intelligence among students at Stockholm University.

H2: Perceived ease of use positively influences the adoption of artificial intelligence among students at Stockholm University.

H3: Perceived risk negatively influences the adoption of artificial intelligence among students at Stockholm University.

H4: Perceived organisational support positively influences the adoption of artificial intelligence among students at Stockholm University.

These hypotheses correspond directly to the research questions articulated in Chapter 1 and provide the basis for the methodological approach described in Chapter 3.

2.9 Chapter Summary

This chapter examined the theoretical background and empirical data in relation to the adoption of AI in higher education. The Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology is the general model and is further expanded by incorporating perceived ease of use of TAM, perceived risk of innovation diffusion studies and perceived organisational support of organisational theory. Both the constructs have been analyzed in the context of recent empirical studies that have shown that there are similar patterns but also bear contextual differences that are worth exploring in the Swedish higher education environment. These hypotheses and the conceptual framework developed on the basis of this review form the basis of the next stages of this research and provide coherence of the theoretical foundations and empirical basis of the research.

3. Method

3.1 Introduction

In this chapter, the author describes the research strategy that will be used to conduct the study on the adoption of artificial intelligence among students at Stockholm University. The research methodology is designed in line with the Research Onion model by Saunders, as it offers a systematic way of elaborating coherent and defendable research designs (Saunders et al., 2019). All the levels of the onion, including research philosophy and down to the data collection methods, are dealt with in order to provide methodological consistency and rigour. The chapter ends with a reiteration of the research hypotheses which will inform empirical research.

3.2 Research Philosophy: Positivism.

The presented research followed a positivist research philosophy according to which the social reality is objective and can be measured with the help of observable phenomena (Saunders et al., 2019). Positivism is of the view that knowledge is based on empirical evidence and that the relationship between variables can be identified, quantified and generalized in situations. Such a philosophical position was suitable since the study sought to quantify the correlations between four independent variables namely, performance expectancy, perceived ease of use, perceived risk and perceived organisational support and the dependent variable of AI adoption among students.

The positivist type of research usually includes the development of hypotheses based on the available theory, gathering quantitative data through the use of structured tools, and testing hypothesized relations with the help of statistical methods (Creswell and Creswell, 2018). In line with this tradition, the current study made use of already existing theory of technology acceptance to formulate testable hypotheses, adopted a standardized questionnaire to gather numerical data, and applied the statistical test to address the strength and significance of the suggested relationships.

3.3 Research Approach: Deductive.

In line with the positivist philosophy, this study used deductive research approach. Deduction entails the formulation of a hypothesis on the assumption that information has been theoretically known, and then data is gathered to determine whether the hypothesis is corroborated or contradicted (Saunders et al., 2019). Deductive is a method with a very organized methodology, operationalization of concepts to facilitate quantitative measurement, and extrapolating results of the sample to populations.

The theoretical basis of the hypothesis development was the Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology (UTAUT), which was developed with additions of the Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology (TAM) constructs, diffusion of innovation literature, and organisational support theory (Venkatesh et al., 2003; Davis, 1989). These theoretical constructs were translated into measurable variables and the relationships between them and AI adoption among the students of the Stockholm University were empirically tested using the deductive approach.

3.4 Research Strategy: Survey

The survey approach was employed in this study. Deductive positivist research is appropriate for surveys as they provide the possibility of the collection of standardized data from large populations, testing relationships between variables and statistical generalization (Saunders et al., 2019). The design was a cross section design, involving the collection of data at one time. Although a longitudinal design was considered, it was rejected because of the limited time allowed for this master's project.

The different alternative strategies were evaluated after Denscombe (2017) classified them. An experimental design was also ruled out as it would have limited ecological validity by separating student from their natural school setting. The case study approach was not considered suitable as the work focused on finding patterns that would apply to the wider group of students and less on detailed stories. The study's positivist epistemological position was in conflict with action research. Therefore, the survey approach was the most suitable in terms of statistical generalizability and testing the hypothesized relationships.

3.5 Research Choices: Monomethod Quantitative.

The research was based on a monomethod quantitative design, which implies that one data collection method is used, and a set of quantitative methods are applied to the collected data (Saunders et al., 2019). The use of quantitative based research only was in line with the positivist philosophy and the deductive approach since the research was focused on numerically measuring variables and statistically testing hypothesised relationships.

The questionnaire was the only data collection tool, which included closed-ended questions aimed at reflecting the perceptions that respondents have towards the four independent variables and their self-reported use of AI tools. This method of monomethod ensured consistency in data collection, as well as the presence of similar procedures of data analysis in all responses.

3.6 Time Horizon: Cross-Sectional.

As mentioned in the analysis of the survey plan, this research used a cross-sectional time series. The participants completed the questionnaires at a single time within the academic year 2025-2026, which gave a picture of the student perception and AI adoption behaviours at the time when the questionnaires were completed. Technology acceptance research involves cross-sectional designs that are suitable when the research questions involve the issue of current attitudes and behaviour and not developmental patterns (Venkatesh et al., 2003).

3.7 Techniques and Procedures

3.7.1 Population and Sampling

The sample of this research included all students who were attending Stockholm University in the 2025-2026 year, both undergraduate and postgraduate, all faculties, and all disciplines. Due to the practical limitations of reaching the whole population, there was a need to use a sampling approach to pick a representative sample of students.

A stratified random sampling was used with the combination of convenience sampling. Stratification monitored that the key subgroups of students in the student population, including undergraduate and postgraduate students, students of various faculties were proportionately represented in the population (Bryman, 2016). The participants were recruited within each stratum, with the convenience sample being the participants in university email lists, learning management system announcements, and student social media groups.

The target sample was calculated using multiple regression analysis indications. At four independent variables, as suggested by Tabachnick and Fidell (2019) $N \geq 50 + 8m$ (m is independent variables), and using four independent variables, the minimum number of respondents was 82. Nevertheless, to consider the possibility of incomplete responses, the objective of the study was to recruit about 200 participants, in order to increase the level of statistical power.

3.7.2 Data Collection Instrument

A structured online questionnaire was used to collect data. All measurement scales were adapted from previously validated scales, and responses were collected on a 5-point Likert scale (1 = Strongly Disagree; 5 = Strongly Agree). Closed-ended questions were selected to allow for standardization of measurement and statistical testing as this is consistent with the positivist and deductive approach (Saunders et al., 2019).

The items were adapted from previous research on the following constructs: performance expectancy (Venkatesh, et al., 2003; Rohana, et al., 2025); perceived ease of use (Davis, 1989; Jeilani, and Abubakar, 2025); perceived risk (Cabrera, and Neville, 2025; Tbaishat, and Elfadel, 2025); perceived organisational support (Jeilani, and Abubakar, 2025); and AI adoption (Aldreabi, et al., 2025; Sergeeva, et al., 2025).

Other instrument designs were proposed and rejected. Qualitative methods (open-ended or semi-structured interviews) did not fit the aims of hypothesis testing. Real time behavioural tracking (such as AI usage logs) would have included more objective measures of adoption but was not technically and logistically viable. It was therefore the most suitable to use the structured and validated question sheet. A complete version of the instrument is available in Appendix B.

3.7.3 Data Collection Procedure

Ethical approval was sought in the institutional review board concerned before data was collected. The pilot test with the few students (n=10) was done to clarify any ambiguities or technical problems or questions on the wording or length of a question. According to pilot feedback, minor changes were done.

The last questionnaire was sent out electronically via university. The involvement was voluntary, and all the respondents were informed and consented to answer all the questions on the questionnaires. Anonymity and confidentiality of the respondents were guaranteed and no personally identifiable information was gathered. The data collection was left open over a period of about four weeks and a reminder was issued after two weeks to get more people involved.

3.7.4 Data Analysis Procedures

Data was analyzed in three stages: using SPSS. The statistical methods used were determined by the research objectives, the type of variables, and the assumptions that underlie the research.

Stage 1: Descriptive Statistics. Sample characteristics and variable distributions were summarized using means, standard deviations, frequencies, and percentages, based on the samples (Pallant 2020).

Stage 2: Correlation Analysis. We calculated the Pearson product-moment correlation coefficients to determine bivariate relationships between each independent variable and AI adoption (Tabachnick & Fidell 2019). All variables were approximately normally distributed

within ±1.96 of skewness and kurtosis, which is why the researcher decided to use Pearson. If normality had been violated, then Spearman's rank order correlation would have been used.

Stage 3: Multiple Regression Analysis. The combined effect of all four predictors on AI adoption was investigated using multiple linear regression (Field, 2018). This method permits simultaneous testing and helps to control for common variance.

Alternative methods were rejected: Structural Equation Modelling would have been too complex for the sample size (n=204); the hierarchical regression would not have had a theoretical basis for the ordering of predictors; and a simple bivariate regression would not have controlled for the confounding effects. Standard multiple regression was thus the most suitable technique.

3.8 Conceptual Framework

Based on the theoretical framework presented in Chapter 2, the following Conceptual framework guide this investigation.

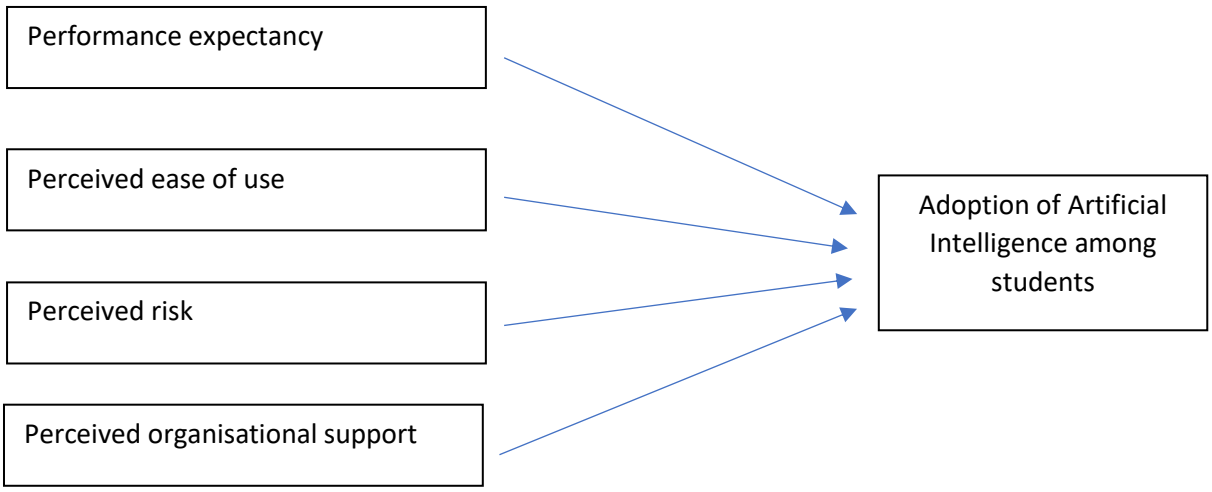


Figure 1: Conceptual Framework

3.9 Ethical Considerations

The conduct of the research was ethically sound and every phase of the research followed the recommendations of the British Educational Research Association (BERA, 2018). All participants were given ample information on the purpose, procedures and possible applications of the research before the study commenced, so that their involvement was entirely voluntary and based on an informed consent. The participants were informed of their right to

leave the research unpenalized and without any reason and were clearly informed of this right prior to their involvement.

Anonymity and confidentiality were also considered as the ethical ground rules. Participants were guaranteed that no personal identifying information was to be gathered or reported. Researchers should make certain data are safely stored and the nature of any publication does not directly or indirectly contribute to a violation of agreed confidentiality and anonymity. Practically, this implied that all raw data were held on password-controlled servers and access had been limited to the research team in accordance with the General Data Protection Regulation (GDPR) (Information Commissioner's Office, 2018).

Voluntary informed consent is essential and needs to be explained in detail, specifying the purpose of the research and the rights of the participants, making sure that they can be fully informed of their opportunities and dangers of taking part in the research. Respondents were also informed that no data would be reused outside of the context of the current research without their additional consent (BERA, 2018).

Procedural compliance was met by securing institutional ethical approval before any data were collected by the corresponding ethics department, which supports the integrity of the research design (Creswell and Creswell, 2018). Such a multi-layered approach to ethics is indicative of not just concerns toward procedural compliance, but the actual safeguarding of the wellbeing and dignity of participants during the research (Cohen et al., 2002).

3.10 Diagnostic Tests

3.10.1 Testing Goodness of Fit of Data

It is believed that prior to using the main analytical tool, goodness of fit needs to be assessed. According to Schunn and Wallach (2005) evaluating the quality of data before analysis guarantees that the results obtained are valid, reliable and not based on artefacts of data. In the current study, a Case Processing Summary was employed to determine whether there were any missing values for the research variables. As shown in Table 3.1 below, there were no missing values for any of the 204 cases in the five variables (Performance Expectancy, Perceived Ease of Use, Perceived Risk, Perceived Organizational Support, AI Adoption) with 0% missing values for all variables. This result not only confirms the validity of the dataset, but also supports the fact that the data is complete and ready for analysis. It also helps avoid the risk of introducing bias into the analysis through listwise or pairwise deletion.

Table 3.1: Case Processing Summary

	Cases					
	Valid		Missing		Total	
	N	Percent	N	Percent	N	Percent
Performance Expectancy	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%
Perceived Ease of Use	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%
Perceived Risk	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%
Perceived Organizational Support	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%
AI Adoption	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%

(Survey Data, 2026)

3.10.2 Testing Normality

Assumptions about normality are common to many parametric statistical tests, such as regression. To assess the normality of the data, this study used the Skewness and Kurtosis statistics. According to Field (2024), skewness refers to the extent to which a distribution is skewed, while kurtosis refers to the extent to which a distribution is peaked or flat. The recommended range for both these statistics is -1.96 to +1.96, where the data would be considered normal (George & Mallery, 2010). As Table 3.2 illustrates, the five variables are well within these bounds. The skewness for Performance Expectancy was -0.786 and kurtosis was 0.011; for Perceived Ease of Use, skewness was -0.682 and kurtosis -0.360; for Perceived Risk, skewness was -0.277 and kurtosis -0.515; for Perceived Organizational Support, skewness was -0.389 and kurtosis 0.045; and for AI Adoption, skewness was -0.840 and kurtosis 0.454. The negative skewness values for all variables suggest a slight left skew in the distributions, which means that the respondents skewed towards more agreement with the Likert-scale items. However, as all values are within the range of -1.96 to +1.96, this suggests that the data are close to normally distributed, hence, the normality assumption for regression analysis is met.

Table 3.2: Testing Normality

Variable	Skewness	Kurtosis
Performance Expectancy	-.786	.011
Perceived Ease of Use	-.682	-.360
Perceived Risk	-.277	-.515
Perceived Organizational Support	-.389	.045
AI Adoption	-.840	.454

(Survey Data, 2026)

3.10.3 Testing Multicollinearity

Multicollinearity occurs when two or more of the independent variables in the regression model are highly correlated, and this can result in invalid regression coefficients and lead to an unreliable model (Hair et al., 2010). Multicollinearity was tested using Tolerance and Variance Inflation Factor (VIF) values. The rule of thumb is that if the VIF values are less than 10 and Tolerance values are greater than 0.1, then multicollinearity is not an issue (Gujarati, 2012). As shown in Table 3.3, the VIF values for Performance Expectancy (1.988), Perceived Ease of Use (2.025), Perceived Risk (1.255) and Perceived Organizational Support (1.228) are all considerably lower than 10. Likewise, the Tolerance values for each of the four predictors 0.503, 0.494, 0.797 and 0.814, respectively are well in excess of 0.1. These findings taken together suggest that there is no multicollinearity issue among the predictors, and that the variance they explain is not shared. Thus, the assumption of multicollinearity is met for multiple regression.

Table 3.3: Testing Multicollinearity

Model		Collinearity Statistics	
		Tolerance	VIF
1	Performance Expectancy	.503	1.988
	Perceived Ease of Use	.494	2.025
	Perceived Risk	.797	1.255
	Perceived Organizational Support	.814	1.228

(Survey Data, 2026)

3.10.4 Testing Autocorrelation

Autocorrelation refers to the correlation between the residuals (error terms) of a regression model, a violation of one of the assumptions of regression analysis. The Durbin-Watson statistic is commonly used to test for autocorrelation of regression residuals (Durbin & Watson, 1950). A Durbin-Watson statistic of 0 to 4 is considered to be positive, with a value of 0 indicating strong positive autocorrelation of the residuals, a value of 4 indicating strong negative autocorrelation, and a value of 2 indicating that the residuals are independent and non-autocorrelated (Field, 2024). In the current study, the Durbin-Watson statistic was 1.863, which is near the optimal value of 2. This provides strong evidence that the residuals of the regression model are independent and that the assumption of no autocorrelation holds. This is good to know and provides confirmation that the regression estimates are unbiased and efficient, and that the model can be safely inferred.

Table 3.4: Testing Autocorrelation

Model	Durbin-Watson
1	1.863

(Survey Data, 2026)

3.10.5 Validity Test

To test the validity of the measurement scales, we used the Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin (KMO) measure of sampling adequacy and Bartlett's Test of Sphericity. The KMO measure tests the amount of variance among variables that may be due to underlying factors, with values approaching 1.0 being preferred for factor analysis (Kaiser, 1974). A KMO value greater than 0.60 is acceptable, greater than 0.70 is good and greater than 0.80 is excellent (Field, 2013). As presented in Table 3.5, KMO values of all the five constructs ranged between 0.852 and 0.904. In particular, Performance Expectancy had a KMO of 0.889, Perceived Ease of Use 0.901, Perceived Risk 0.868, Perceived Organizational Support 0.852, and AI Adoption 0.904. All of these are within the "excellent" category, and indicate that the data is extremely suitable for factor analysis, and that the constructs have high construct validity. This is strong evidence that the measurement items are valid and consistent manifestations of their underlying constructs.

Table 3.5: Validity Test

Variables	KMO value
Performance Expectancy	0.889
Perceived Ease of Use	0.901
Perceived Risk	0.868
Perceived Organizational Support	0.852
AI Adoption	0.904

(Survey Data, 2026)

3.10.6 Reliability Test

Reliability measures the internal consistency of a measurement scale the extent to which the items on a scale measure the same construct. The most commonly used method of measuring internal consistency reliability is Cronbach's Alpha (Cronbach, 1951). Cronbach's Alpha values of 0.70 or higher are considered acceptable, with values of 0.80 above and 0.90 above being considered good and excellent, respectively (Nunnally & Bernstein, 1994). As shown in Table 3.6, the Cronbach's Alpha values for the five studied constructs were very high. The values are 0.931 for Performance Expectancy, 0.952 for Perceived Ease of Use, 0.913 for Perceived Risk, 0.859 for Perceived Organizational Support and 0.946 for AI Adoption. These figures are all significantly higher than 0.90 (except Perceived Organizational Support, which is above 0.80), suggesting that the scales used to measure these constructs are highly reliable and consistent. This suggests the items in the questionnaire are good indicators of their respective constructs, thus reinforcing the statistical analyses and conclusions that follow.

Table 3.6: Reliability Test

Variables	Cronbach's Alpha value
Performance Expectancy	0.931
Perceived Ease of Use	0.952
Perceived Risk	0.913
Perceived Organizational Support	0.859
AI Adoption	0.946

(Survey Data, 2026)

4. Results

4.1 Chapter Introduction

This chapter outlines the analysis of data collected from Stockholm University students to understand the adoption of Artificial Intelligence (AI) in universities. The study aims to investigate the impact of Performance Expectancy, Perceived Ease of Use, Perceived Risk, and Perceived Organizational Support on students' adoption of AI. The chapter is divided into four main sections: demographics, descriptive statistics, regression analysis, and hypothesis testing. Each of these sections is structured to fulfil the research goals, and test the four hypotheses proposed in the previous chapters. The diagnostic tests helped to establish the validity of the statistical assumptions prior to inferential testing. The descriptive statistics give an overview of the central location and variability of the data, while the demographic analysis contextualizes the sample. The regression and hypothesis testing then analyse the relationships between the independent variables and AI adoption.

4.2 Analysis of Demographic Information

4.2.1 Age

Age distribution of the respondents is given in Table 4.1. From the table, it is shown that the highest number of respondents are those 27 years and older, with 87 students (42.6%), followed by those 23-26 years old with 62 students (30.4%). The 18-22 year old made up 49 respondents (24.0%) while the youngest group (aged under 18) had 6 respondents (2.9%). This suggests that the sample mainly consists of mature students, which is in line with the Stockholm University student population, which features a significant number of postgraduate and return students. The higher number of older participants may also be explained by their higher level of literacy in the use of new technologies, such as AI.

Table 4.1: Age

		Frequency	Percent	Valid Percent	Cumulative Percent
Valid	Under 18	6	2.9	2.9	2.9
	18–22	49	24.0	24.0	27.0
	23–26	62	30.4	30.4	57.4
	27+	87	42.6	42.6	100.0
	Total	204	100.0	100.0	

(Survey Data, 2026)

4.2.2 Gender

In terms of gender, Table 4.2 shows that males constituted the majority of the sample, with 112 respondents (54.9%) compared to 82 female respondents (40.2%). Ten (4.9%) reported 'Prefer not to say'. This indicates that while the sample was slightly skewed towards males, there was also a strong representation of females, making the overall gender representation relatively equal. The fact that the study also included a "Prefer not to say" option also demonstrates the inclusivity of the study, and respect for privacy of the participants.

Table 4.2: Gender

		Frequency	Percent	Valid Percent	Cumulative Percent
Valid	Male	112	54.9	54.9	54.9
	Female	82	40.2	40.2	95.1
	Prefer not to say	10	4.9	4.9	100.0
	Total	204	100.0	100.0	

(Survey Data, 2026)

4.2.3 Level of Study

As shown in Table 4.3, the study's sample was evenly divided between undergraduate and postgraduate students. There were 104 undergraduate students (51.0%) and 100 postgraduate students (49.0%). This balanced representation is advantageous for research as it provides a more holistic view of attitudes toward adopting AI technologies at different educational levels. Both undergraduate and postgraduate students will use AI tools in various academic settings and their perspectives add value to the study.

Table 4.3: Level of Study

		Frequency	Percent	Valid Percent	Cumulative Percent
Valid	Undergraduate	104	51.0	51.0	51.0
	Postgraduate	100	49.0	49.0	100.0
	Total	204	100.0	100.0	

(Survey Data, 2026)

4.2.4 Field of Study

Table 4.4 shows the breakdown of the respondents by field of study. The greatest proportion of respondents were Engineering/IT students (64 respondents, 31.4%) and Business students (51 respondents, 25.0%). There were 44 respondents (21.6%) in the Arts/Humanities category, and 43 respondents (21.1%) in the Science category. Just 2 respondents (1.0%) identified 'Other' as their course. The large representation of Engineering/IT students is interesting and could reflect the interest in technology-based tools like AI in these fields. But the inclusion of Business, Arts and Science students also demonstrates that the results are not limited to technology-related disciplines.

Table 4.4: Field of Study

		Frequency	Percent	Valid Percent	Cumulative Percent
Valid	Business	51	25.0	25.0	25.0
	Science	43	21.1	21.1	46.1
	Engineering/IT	64	31.4	31.4	77.5
	Arts/Humanities	44	21.6	21.6	99.0
	Other	2	1.0	1.0	100.0
	Total	204	100.0	100.0	

(Survey Data, 2026)

4.2.5 Experience with AI Tools

The self-reported experience of the respondents with AI tools is shown in Table 4.5. As the results show, the majority of the respondents have some degree of AI experience. The most common were Beginner users (64 respondents; 31.4%) followed by Intermediate users (63 respondents; 30.9%). Experienced users comprised 53 respondents (26.0%) and 24 respondents (11.8%) had never used an AI tool before. Overall, 88.2% of the respondents had some AI experience, indicating that Stockholm University students are relatively well-informed about AI. This offers a solid basis for assessing adoption patterns and attitudes.

Table 4.5: Experience with AI Tools

		Frequency	Percent	Valid Percent	Cumulative Percent
Valid	None	24	11.8	11.8	11.8
	Beginner	64	31.4	31.4	43.1
	Intermediate	63	30.9	30.9	74.0
	Advanced	53	26.0	26.0	100.0
	Total	204	100.0	100.0	

(Survey Data, 2026)

4.3 Descriptive Analysis

Descriptive analysis is a summary of the central tendencies and variability of the data, and it is an important initial step in quantitative research (Hair et al., 2010). In this research, the mean (M) and the standard deviation (SD) were identified for the five constructs. The data was measured on a 5-point scale from 1 (Strongly Disagree) to 5 (Strongly Agree), thus the lower the mean score, the higher the agreement with the items in the survey. The descriptive statistics are shown in Table 4.6.

Table 4.6: Descriptive Statistics

	N	Minimum	Maximum	Mean	Std. Deviation
Performance Expectancy	204	1.00	5.00	3.7206	1.04376
Perceived Ease of Use	204	1.00	5.00	3.4422	1.09903
Perceived Risk	204	1.00	5.00	3.1686	1.04547
Perceived Organisational Support	204	1.00	5.00	3.4863	.92795
AI Adoption	204	1.00	5.00	3.6490	1.02402
Valid N (listwise)	204				

(Survey Data, 2026)

The findings show that the lowest mean was for Perceived Risk (3.1686, SD = 1.045), meaning that the respondents are more likely to agree that risk is an issue with AI adoption. The highest mean was recorded by Performance Expectancy, with a mean of 3.7206 (SD = 1.044),

suggesting that the respondents were slightly neither agree nor disagree with the statement that AI use will improve their performance, or that they moderately expect improvement in their performance. Perceived Ease of Use had a mean of 3.4422 (SD = 1.099) and suggests moderate agreement to the ease of AI use. Perceived Organizational Support had a mean of 3.4863 (SD = 0.928), implying that students moderately perceive or receive organisational support for AI use. In contrast, AI Adoption had a mean of 3.6490 (SD = 1.024), suggesting moderate AI adoption among the students. In terms of the degree of variance, the standard deviation for all the variables are quite similar, indicating a similar variance and diversity of views among the sample.

4.4 Regression Analysis

A multiple linear regression analysis was used to analyse the predictive power of the independent variables Performance Expectancy, Perceived Ease of Use, Perceived Risk and Perceived Organizational Support on the dependent variable AI Adoption. Multiple regression analysis is a popular statistical method used to examine the relationship between several predictors and one dependent variable, adjusting for other variables in the model (Cohen et al., 2013). This technique enables the analysis of multiple predictors and allows the researcher to assess which of the independent variables significantly predict the dependent variable.

4.4.1 Model Summary

Table 4.7's Model Summary displays measures of the overall fit of the regression model. The R value is defined by Field (2024) as the multiple correlation coefficient between the predictor variables and the dependent variable, and the R Square (R^2) value represents the proportion of variance of the dependent variable that is explained by the predictor variables. The Adjusted R Square is a revised version of R Square taking into account the number of predictors.

Table 4.7: Model Summary

Model	R	R Square	Adjusted R Square	Std. Error of the Estimate
1	.791[a]	.625	.618	.63316

(Survey Data, 2026)

The findings suggest that the model produced an R value of 0.791, which means there is a strong positive relationship between the independent variables and AI Adoption. This gives an

R Square value of 0.625, meaning that the four predictor variables explain 62.5% of the variance in the AI Adoption of Stockholm University students. The Adjusted R Square of 0.618, which accounts for the number of predictors, is still high, indicating that the model remains a good fit. The Standard Error of the Estimate (0.633) is low, indicating that the regression model is accurate. This indicates that the model fits the data well and the predictors are relevant to predicting AI adoption behaviour.

4.4.2 ANOVA Test

An Analysis of Variance (ANOVA) test was used to assess the significance of the regression model. When used in regression analysis, ANOVA tests the overall significance of the combined predictor variables in explaining the variance in the dependent variable (Pallant, 2020). If the F-value is significant (i.e., $p < 0.05$), then the overall regression model is considered to be statistically significant and a better fit than a model with no predictors.

Table 4.8: ANOVA

Model		Sum of Squares	df	Mean Square	F	Sig.
1	Regression	133.092	4	33.273	82.998	.000[b]
	Residual	79.777	199	.401		
	Total	212.870	203			

(Survey Data, 2026)

The ANOVA results, as illustrated in Table 4.8, produced an F-value of 82.998, which is significant at the $p < 0.05$ level. The finding confirms that the regression model, as a whole, is statistically significant, suggesting that the four predictors (Performance Expectancy, Perceived Ease of Use, Perceived Risk, and Perceived Organizational Support) explain a significant amount of variance in AI Adoption. The large F-value also highlights the good fit of the regression model. These results offer robust statistical support for the interpretation of individual regression coefficients and for testing the hypotheses.

4.4.3 Coefficients Table

The Coefficients Table (Table 4.9) present the unstandardised coefficients (B), standardised coefficients (Beta), t value and p-value (significance) for each predictor variable. The rule to interpret these coefficients is based on the sign and p-value of the coefficient. A coefficient

with a p-value less than 0.05 is statistically significant (Hair et al., 2010). Beta shows how each independent variable affects the dependent variable while considering other independent variables. To accept the hypothesis with a 95% confidence level, we need the p value to be less than or equal to 0.05. If the p-value is greater than 0.05 the alternative hypothesis will not be accepted.

Table 4.9: Coefficients Table

Model		Unstandardized Coefficients		Standardized Coefficients	t	Sig.
		B	Std. Error	Beta		
1	(Constant)	.995	.247		4.035	.000
	Performance Expectancy	.454	.060	.463	7.562	.000
	Perceived Ease of Use	.368	.058	.394	6.387	.000
	Perceived Risk	-.117	.048	-.119	-2.451	.015
	Perceived Organisational Support	.020	.053	.018	.376	.708

(Survey Data, 2026)

Table 4.9 shows a number of key insights on the individual predictors of AI Adoption. The greatest predictor was Performance Expectancy, Beta = 0.463, t-value = 7.562, $p < 0.05$. Perceived Ease of Use was also significant, with a Beta of 0.394 and a t-value of 6.387 ($p < 0.001$). Perceived Risk had a negative and significant Beta coefficient (-0.119) with a t-value of -2.451 and a p-value of 0.015, showing that as the perceived risk increases, the likelihood of adopting AI decreases. On the other hand, the Beta coefficient for Perceived Organizational Support was 0.018 and was not significant (t-value = 0.376, p-value = 0.708).

4.5 Hypothesis Testing

The regression results presented in the Coefficients Table (Table 4.9) are used to test the four hypotheses of this study.

H1: Performance Expectancy positively influences the Adoption of Artificial Intelligence among students at Stockholm University.

The regression analysis (Table 4.9) shows that Performance Expectancy has a significant positive influence on AI Adoption (B = 0.454, Beta = 0.463, t = 7.562, p < 0.05). This suggests students who believe using AI tools improves their academic performance are more likely to adopt this technology. The standardised Beta coefficient (0.463) is the highest among all the predictors and confirms that Performance Expectancy is the strongest predictor of AI adoption in this study. H1 is thus supported.

H2: Perceived Ease of Use positively influences the Adoption of Artificial Intelligence among students at Stockholm University.

The regression analysis reveals that Perceived Ease of Use is a significant positive predictor of AI Adoption (B = 0.368, Beta = 0.394, t = 6.387, p < 0.05). This suggests that if students perceive the use of AI tools to be easy, they are more likely to use them in their study. The Beta coefficient value of 0.394 suggests that Perceived Ease of Use is the second strongest predictor. So, H2 is supported.

H3: Perceived Risk negatively influences the Adoption of Artificial Intelligence among students at Stockholm University.

The results of the regression analysis show that Perceived Risk negatively influences AI Adoption and the relationship is significant (B = -0.117, Beta = -0.119, t = -2.451, p = 0.015). This finding suggests that students' perceived risk of using AI technologies negatively affects their adoption of AI technologies. Hence, H3 is supported.

H4: Perceived Organizational Support positively influences the Adoption of Artificial Intelligence among students at Stockholm University.

The regression analysis results show that Perceived Organizational Support does not have a significant impact on AI Adoption (B = 0.020, Beta = 0.018, t = 0.376, p = 0.708). The p-value (0.708) is exceeding the 0.05 threshold. Hence, H4 is not supported.

4.6 Summary of Hypothesis Testing

Table 4.10 below offers a summary of the results of the hypothesis testing based on the regression analysis.

Table 4.10: Summary of Hypothesis Testing

Hypothesis	Relationship	Beta	Sig.	Decision
H1	Performance Expectancy → AI Adoption	.463	.000	Supported
H2	Perceived Ease of Use → AI Adoption	.394	.000	Supported
H3	Perceived Risk → AI Adoption	-.119	.015	Supported
H4	Perceived Org. Support → AI Adoption	.018	.708	Not Supported

(Survey Data, 2026)

5. Discussion

5.1 Overview of Findings

The current study investigated the effect of performance expectancy, perceived ease of use, perceived risk and perceived organisational support on the use of AI technology among students at the Stockholm University. Multiple regression was used to analyse data from 204 students, and the results showed a model explaining variance in AI adoption with an $R^2 = 0.625$, Adjusted $R^2 = 0.618$, and an overall F-value of 82.998 ($p < 0.001$), confirming the statistical significance of the model. Now these results need to be put into context with the wider scientific consensus to appreciate how they confirm, elucidate and contradict earlier research.

The results support the propositions of the Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology (UTAUT) (Venkatesh et al., 2003) in which performance expectancy and effort expectancy (the latter being equivalent to perceived ease of use) are the two most important factors affecting behavioural intention. The study contributes to UTAUT by proving its applicability in the Swedish higher education context, which has been less studied than other contexts reported in previous technology acceptance studies (Aldreabi et al., 2025; Bouebdallah & Youssef, 2025; Sergeeva et al., 2025). Additionally, by adding perceived risk, the study reflects recent research on innovation diffusion that emphasizes ethical and integrity issues as factors that hinder the use of AI (Cabrera & Neville, 2025). The absence of a significant finding with regards to perceived organisational support is surprising but adds a valuable dimension to the organisational support theory (Jeilani & Abubakar, 2025) which indicates that organisational support might not have a significant influence in situations where students are already self-directed technology users. Together, these results contribute three folds to the literature: they affirm the explanatory value of UTAUT in this new Scandinavian higher education context; they measure the negative influence of perceived risk on student adoption; and they demonstrate the non-universal predictive power of perceived organisational support, paving the way for theoretical refinement.

5.2 The Overriding Influence of Performance Expectancy.

The greatest influence on the adoption of AI in the present research was performance expectancy (Beta = 0.463, p < 0.001) which validated H1 and corroborated with the basic

assumptions of Unified Theory of Acceptance and Use of Technology. This result indicates that the utilitarian calculus of students at Stockholm University is the key factor that makes them choose to adopt AI tools when they believe that this technology will allow them to achieve better academic outcomes, better the quality of the work they produce, or become more productive. This finding is reminiscent of the trend observed in previous studies, such as those conducted among French management students and Russian university students, in which performance expectancy has always been the strongest predictor in various cultural/disciplinary settings. What the current results contribute is to the fact that this dynamic is present in the Swedish context of higher education where scholarly independence norms and expectations otherwise would be anticipated to restrain AI assistance zeal. The practical implication is that institutions and educators aiming to encourage people to adopt responsible AI need to invest in showing the practical academic benefit of AI tools, and not to assume that students will embrace them simply because they are available. Some of the effective mechanisms that can be used to enhance performance expectancy perceptions of students who have not yet made their mind may be orientation programmes, faculty-led demonstrations, and discipline-specific showcases of the utility of AI.

5.3 Perceived Ease of Use as an Enabler.

Perceived ease of use (Beta = 0.394, $p < 0.001$) was the second significant predictor and proved H2, as it confirmed that accessibility and usability of AI tools have a significant impact on adoption behaviour among the students at Stockholm University. This finding is equivalent to the traditional role of effort expectancy in UTAUT and the initial input of the Technology Acceptance Model suggested by Davis, which described perceived ease of use as a determining factor of user acceptance. Students who find AI tools easy to use, with minimal technical skills, and to navigate are much more likely to use them. It is a practically significant observation since the ease of use is, in contrast to performance expectancy, a feature that can be directly influenced by institutions and developers. The interface design, onboarding, as well as the delivery of guided tutorials are all tangible levers, which can reduce the perceived effort of using AI tools. The result also relates to the studies where the perceived ease of use was observed to mediate the correlation between self-efficacy and adoption intention, indicating that the students who have no confidence in their technical skills may consider even the user-friendly tools to be difficult. Specific digital literacy training might, thus, be doubly

advantageous, both in terms of competence and subjective ease which is the predictor of adoption.

5.4 Risk as a Perceived Barrier to Adoption.

According to H3, perceived risk was significantly negatively correlated with AI adoption (Beta = -0.119, p = 0.015). Although this effect was not as large as performance expectancy or perceived ease of use, its statistical significance proves that the issue of academic integrity, data privacy, information reliability, and overreliance on AI are a reality that causes psychological constraints to its adoption among students. This is in line with the overall literature that reports the conflict between the excitement around AI tools and skepticism of the results and consequences. The discovery is especially applicable to the situation of the UNESCO global survey, which has shown that both students and institutions, on the whole, are still unsure of the ethical limits of AI application and that official AI policies are still in an early stage of development in higher education. In the case of Stockholm University students, this ambiguity seems to manifest itself in quantifiable aversion to AI, despite the recognition of performance gains and convenience. What this means is that risk mitigation should not be a passive institutional priority but rather an active one. It needs clear, enforceable academic integrity policies, transparent data governance frameworks and honest communication about the constraints and proper use of AI-generated content to decrease the perceived risk that currently drives adoption. In their absence, students will keep progressing in unsanctioned and unclear applications of AI, which is in itself the opposite of the risks of misconduct in studies and overdependence that should be avoided that institutions are trying to avoid..

5.5 The Non-Significant Role of Perceived Organisational Support

The least expected result of this research was the lack of a statistically significant correlation between perceived organisational support and AI adoption (Beta = 0.018, p = 0.708), which made H4 rejected. This finding contradicts both theoretical predictions based on organisational support theory and existing empirical literature that shows that institutional support in the shape of training, infrastructure and articulate policies play a crucial role in determining technology adoption behaviour. This observation in the Stockholm University setting could have a number of explanations. First, respondents were relatively high in prior AI experience (88.2% had some experience with AI tools), which could indicate that students are already using AI tools in informal settings, regardless of what institutional assistance they receive. When this happens,

organisational support will not be a trigger of adoption decision since the decision on adoption has already been undertaken individually. Second, since only 19% of institutions of higher education worldwide had official AI policies during the date of data collection, students at Stockholm University might not have received sufficiently differentiated levels of organisational support to consider it an important determinant in their decisions. When the same kind of institutional guidance is received by all students, then there is not enough difference on the organisational support perceptions that can be used to predict adoption differences. Third, it could also be that the scale of perceived organisational support in the study was mainly an indicator of formal, structured institutional support training programmes, official policies, technical infrastructure whilst ignoring informal social support that comes through peers, online communities, and self-directed learning that may be the preeminent avenues through which students acquire AI competencies. Research might help in the future by looking at informal and peer-based structures of support as two distinct entities rather than looking at formal institutional provision.

5.6 Theoretical and Practical Contributions.

The research provides a significant addition to the existing literature on AI adoption in higher education through an empirical test of an expanded UTAUT-based framework in the Swedish higher education setting a setting that has been the most underrepresented topic in the technology acceptance literature, which has mostly been carried out in North American, Asian, and Middle Eastern environments. The fact that three out of four hypotheses were confirmed proves that the UTAUT framework has explanatory power in the context of any cultural setting, in addition to the fact that the framework has to be calibrated. The insignificant contribution of organisational support, especially, undermines the supposition that institutional readiness is universally predictive of student adoption and makes it possible to continue with theoretical development. Practically, the findings present university administrators, academic developers, and policymakers with a clear guide on prioritizing AI integration endeavors. Investments in communication of the academic worth of AI, minimizing interface complexity and establishing trust via transparent management will probably have higher returns than the broad infrastructural investment taken without cultural and pedagogical transformation. Such recommendations are particularly timely considering that universities in Europe are currently formulating their AI strategies and that student acceptance is a vital variable in deciding whether institutional policies can be translated into useful academic behaviour.

5.7 Limitations and Future Research Directions.

There are a number of limitations to this study. The cross-sectional design only captures perceptions at one time, so it is impossible to understand whether results indicate stable attitudes or dispositional shifts, with a longitudinal design offering a better way to understand how adoption behaviour changes as AI tools and institutional policies advance. Mostly, the sample was based on mainly the Engineering/IT and Business students, which could bias views on the usefulness of AI as opposed to students in Arts or Humanities. Further studies need to consider less represented fields, include moderating factors like gender, level of education, and previous experience with AI, and investigate informal peer-based support systems as independent constructs in addition to formal institutionally provided support.

5.8 Conclusion

This paper explored determinants of AI adoption and inhibitors among students at Stockholm University, with perceived utility in academics and convenience as the most enabling factors and risk-related issues regarding academic integrity, data privacy, and reliability being a significant obstacle. The insignificant contribution of the perceived organisational support indicates that the students are mostly left to their own devices in their AI adoption processes, thus reinforcing the necessity of more explicit institutional guidelines. Finally, the use of AI in higher education is not automatic or consistent behaviour, but rather an individual cognition, tool design, and institutional culture. Since the world is busy in the quest to integrate AI in a responsible manner, findings like these give universities around the world an empirical foundation in making decisions that benefit both the institution and the overall mission of equipping students to be engaged ethically and critically with technologies that are shaping their future.

5.9 Use of IT and AI tools

For this quantitative study, a few tools of IT and AI were used to assist in the research process. SPSS (Statistical Package for the Social Sciences) was used as the main software in the data entry, data cleaning and statistical analysis process, descriptive statistics, correlation analysis and regression testing were used. The data was initially organized and basic calculations were performed in Microsoft Excel. The identification and access of relevant academic literature was made easy with the help of Google Scholar and the Stockholm University Library Database. The conceptual framework diagram and the model of the research were created using

Lucidchart. Lucidchart is used for developing the conceptual framework diagram and the model of the research. Moreover, AI aids like ChatGPT and Claude AI helped detect grammatical errors in the writing and even helped in the search for academic sources that were relevant to the text. All IT and AI-based tools were used in a responsible way and were used as a complement, and not a replacement, to the researcher's own analytical judgment and interpretation of the statistical results.

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Appendix

Appendix A — Informed Consent Form

Research Title:

"The Adoption of Artificial Intelligence in Higher Education: Insights from Students at Stockholm University"

Message from Researchers

Dear Participant,

We are conducting a research study as part of our Master's thesis at Stockholm University. This study aims to explore how students use Artificial Intelligence (AI) tools (such as ChatGPT, Copilot, and similar technologies) in their academic activities and what factors influence their adoption.

We kindly invite you to participate in this survey, which will take approximately **5–10 minutes** to complete. Your participation will contribute to understanding how AI can be effectively and responsibly integrated into higher education.

Research Purpose

This study investigates how factors such as perceived usefulness, ease of use, perceived risk, and organisational support influence students' adoption of AI tools in higher education. The findings will help improve institutional policies and support systems for AI use in academic environments.

Participant Rights

- Participation is **completely voluntary**
- You may withdraw at any time without any consequences
- You may skip any question if you prefer not to answer
- Your responses will remain **anonymous and confidential**

Study Procedure

The survey will be conducted online and will take approximately **5–10 minutes** to complete. It includes questions about your experience, perceptions, and use of AI tools in your studies.

No personally identifiable information will be collected.

Data Privacy & Confidentiality

All data collected will be securely stored and used only for academic purposes. The results will be analyzed in aggregate form, ensuring that no individual participant can be identified. The study complies with **GDPR regulations**.

Contact Information

If you have any questions regarding this study, please contact:

Researchers:

R P Vimukthi Lakmal Madusanka
vira1894@student.su.se
Rambergan Selvanayagam
sera8241@student.su.se

Institution: Stockholm University

Consent Declaration

By proceeding with this survey, you confirm that:

✓ You have read and understood the information provided
✓ You voluntarily agree to participate in this study
✓ You understand your right to withdraw at any time

Thank you for your valuable participation.

Appendix B — Survey Questions

Section A: Demographic Information

1. Age:
   ☐ Under 18 ☐ 18–22 ☐ 23–26 ☐ 27+
2. Gender:
   ☐ Male ☐ Female ☐ Prefer not to say
3. Level of Study:
   ☐ Undergraduate ☐ Postgraduate
4. Field of Study:
   ☐ Business ☐ Science ☐ Engineering/IT ☐ Arts/Humanities ☐ Other: _____
5. Experience with AI tools:
   ☐ None ☐ Beginner ☐ Intermediate ☐ Advanced

Section B: Main Questionnaire

Scale:
1 = Strongly Disagree | 2 = Disagree | 3 = Neutral | 4 = Agree | 5 = Strongly Agree

Performance Expectancy

Statement	1	2	3	4	5
PE1: Using AI tools improves my academic performance					
PE2: AI tools help me complete academic tasks more quickly					
PE3: AI tools increase my productivity in studying					
PE4: AI tools are useful for my learning activities					
PE5: AI tools enhance the quality of my academic work					

Perceived Ease of Use

Statement	1	2	3	4	5
PEOU1: Learning to use AI tools is easy for me					
PEOU2: It is easy for me to become skillful at using AI tools					
PEOU3: I find AI tools clear and understandable					
PEOU4: Interacting with AI tools does not require a lot of effort					
PEOU5: Overall, AI tools are easy to use					

Perceived Risk

Statement	1	2	3	4	5
PR1: I am concerned about the accuracy of AI-generated information					
PR2: Using AI tools may negatively affect my learning					
PR3: I worry about academic integrity issues when using AI					
PR4: I am concerned about my data privacy when using AI tools					
PR5: AI tools may provide misleading or biased information					

Perceived Organisational Support

Statement	1	2	3	4	5
POS1: My university provides adequate support for using AI tools					
POS2: I receive proper guidance on how to use AI in my studies					
POS3: My institution has clear policies regarding AI usage					
POS4: Training or resources for AI tools are available to me					
POS5: My university encourages responsible use of AI tools					

AI Adoption

Statement	1	2	3	4	5
AI1: I frequently use AI tools for academic purposes					
AI2: I intend to continue using AI tools in my studies					
AI3: I rely on AI tools to assist with assignments					
AI4: I plan to increase my use of AI tools in the future					
AI5: I use AI tools in a variety of academic tasks					

Thank you…….

Appendix C — SPSS Outputs

01. Case Processing Summary

Case Processing Summary						
	Cases					
	Valid		Missing		Total	
	N	Percent	N	Percent	N	Percent
Performance Expectancy	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%
Perceived Ease of Use	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%
Perceived Risk	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%
Perceived Organisational Support	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%
AI Adoption	204	100.0%	0	0.0%	204	100.0%

02. Testing Normality

Descriptives				
			Statistic	Std. Error
Performance Expectancy	Mean		3.7206	.07308
	95% Confidence Interval for Mean	Lower Bound	3.5765	
		Upper Bound	3.8647	
	5% Trimmed Mean		3.7902	
	Median		4.0000	
	Variance		1.089	
	Std. Deviation		1.04376	
	Minimum		1.00	
	Maximum		5.00	
	Range		4.00	
	Interquartile Range		1.40	
	Skewness		-.786	.170
	Kurtosis		.011	.339
Perceived Ease of Use	Mean		3.4422	.07695
	95% Confidence Interval for Mean	Lower Bound	3.2904	
		Upper Bound	3.5939	
	5% Trimmed Mean		3.4911	
	Median		3.8000	
	Variance		1.208	
	Std. Deviation		1.09903	
	Minimum		1.00	
	Maximum		5.00	
	Range		4.00	

	Interquartile Range		1.40	
	Skewness		-.682	.170
	Kurtosis		-.360	.339
Perceived Risk	Mean		3.1686	.07320
	95% Confidence Interval for Mean	Lower Bound	3.0243	
		Upper Bound	3.3130	
	5% Trimmed Mean		3.1874	
	Median		3.2000	
	Variance		1.093	
	Std. Deviation		1.04547	
	Minimum		1.00	
	Maximum		5.00	
	Range		4.00	
	Interquartile Range		1.40	
	Skewness		-.277	.170
	Kurtosis		-.515	.339
Perceived Organisational Support	Mean		3.4863	.06497
	95% Confidence Interval for Mean	Lower Bound	3.3582	
		Upper Bound	3.6144	
	5% Trimmed Mean		3.5253	
	Median		3.4000	
	Variance		.861	
	Std. Deviation		.92795	
	Minimum		1.00	
	Maximum		5.00	
	Range		4.00	
	Interquartile Range		1.00	
	Skewness		-.389	.170
	Kurtosis		.045	.339
AI Adoption	Mean		3.6490	.07170
	95% Confidence Interval for Mean	Lower Bound	3.5077	
		Upper Bound	3.7904	
	5% Trimmed Mean		3.7209	
	Median		4.0000	
	Variance		1.049	
	Std. Deviation		1.02402	
	Minimum		1.00	
	Maximum		5.00	
	Range		4.00	
	Interquartile Range		1.40	
	Skewness		-.840	.170
	Kurtosis		.454	.339

03. Testing Multicollinearity

Coefficients[a]			
Model		Collinearity Statistics	
		Tolerance	VIF
1	Performance Expectancy	.503	1.988
	Perceived Ease of Use	.494	2.025
	Perceived Risk	.797	1.255
	Perceived Organisational Support	.814	1.228
a. Dependent Variable: AI Adoption			

04. Testing Autocorrelation

Model Summary[b]					
Model	R	R Square	Adjusted R Square	Std. Error of the Estimate	Durbin-Watson
1	.791[a]	.625	.618	.63316	1.863
a. Predictors: (Constant), Perceived Organisational Support, Performance Expectancy, Perceived Risk, Perceived Ease of Use					
b. Dependent Variable: AI Adoption					

05. Validity Test

Performance Expectancy

KMO and Bartlett's Test		
Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin Measure of Sampling Adequacy.		.889
Bartlett's Test of Sphericity	Approx. Chi-Square	796.372
	df	10
	Sig.	.000

Perceived Ease of Use

KMO and Bartlett's Test		
Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin Measure of Sampling Adequacy.		.901
Bartlett's Test of Sphericity	Approx. Chi-Square	1032.203
	df	10
	Sig.	.000

Perceived Risk

KMO and Bartlett's Test		
Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin Measure of Sampling Adequacy.		.868
Bartlett's Test of Sphericity	Approx. Chi-Square	697.014
	df	10
	Sig.	.000

Perceived Organizational Support

KMO and Bartlett's Test		
Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin Measure of Sampling Adequacy.		.852
Bartlett's Test of Sphericity	Approx. Chi-Square	436.423
	df	10
	Sig.	.000

AI Adoption

KMO and Bartlett's Test		
Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin Measure of Sampling Adequacy.		.904
Bartlett's Test of Sphericity	Approx. Chi-Square	945.100
	df	10
	Sig.	.000

06. Reliability Test

Performance Expectancy

Reliability Statistics	
Cronbach's Alpha	N of Items
.931	5

Perceived Ease of Use

Reliability Statistics	
Cronbach's Alpha	N of Items
.952	5

Perceived Risk

Reliability Statistics	
Cronbach's Alpha	N of Items
.913	5

Perceived Organizational Support

Reliability Statistics	
Cronbach's Alpha	N of Items
.859	5

AI Adoption

Reliability Statistics	
Cronbach's Alpha	N of Items
.946	5

07. Descriptive Analysis

Descriptive Statistics					
	N	Minimum	Maximum	Mean	Std. Deviation
Performance Expectancy	204	1.00	5.00	3.7206	1.04376
Perceived Ease of Use	204	1.00	5.00	3.4422	1.09903
Perceived Risk	204	1.00	5.00	3.1686	1.04547
Perceived Organisational Support	204	1.00	5.00	3.4863	.92795
AI Adoption	204	1.00	5.00	3.6490	1.02402
Valid N (listwise)	204				

08. Regression Analysis

Variables Entered/Removed[a]			
Model	Variables Entered	Variables Removed	Method
1	Perceived Organisational Support, Performance Expectancy, Perceived Risk, Perceived Ease of Use[b]	.	Enter
a. Dependent Variable: AI Adoption			
b. All requested variables entered.			

Model Summary				
Model	R	R Square	Adjusted R Square	Std. Error of the Estimate
1	.791[a]	.625	.618	.63316
a. Predictors: (Constant), Perceived Organisational Support, Performance Expectancy, Perceived Risk, Perceived Ease of Use				

ANOVA[a]						
Model		Sum of Squares	df	Mean Square	F	Sig.
1	Regression	133.092	4	33.273	82.998	.000[b]
	Residual	79.777	199	.401		
	Total	212.870	203			
a. Dependent Variable: AI Adoption						
b. Predictors: (Constant), Perceived Organisational Support, Performance Expectancy, Perceived Risk, Perceived Ease of Use						

Coefficients[a]						
Model		Unstandardized Coefficients		Standardized Coefficients	t	Sig.
		B	Std. Error	Beta		
1	(Constant)	.995	.247		4.035	.000
	Performance Expectancy	.454	.060	.463	7.562	.000
	Perceived Ease of Use	.368	.058	.394	6.387	.000
	Perceived Risk	-.117	.048	-.119	-2.451	.015
	Perceived Organisational Support	.020	.053	.018	.376	.708
a. Dependent Variable: AI Adoption						